

Country Profile: Angola

Nation-Building Policies Dataset

- Number of groups in country: 11
- Plurality religion: Christianity
- Official language: Portuguese (2010)
- Official religion: Secular state
- Core group: None

Historical Background

Angola is currently a unitary presidential republic. The modern state traces its origins to centuries of Portuguese colonial domination, which began in the late 15th century and lasted until 1975, when Angola secured independence after a long anti-colonial struggle. Independence, however, was swiftly followed by the outbreak of the Angolan Civil War, which raged from 1975 until 2002.¹

Groups

Angola experienced settler colonialism, as colonial rule encouraged Portuguese migration for permanent settlement and oriented the economy toward settler agriculture. Racialized social stratification was institutionalized through the *assimilado* status, reserved for Africans deemed “civilized” according to colonial norms. This status granted a tiny fraction of the African population limited civil rights while reinforcing the supremacy of white settlers.² Colonial racial categorizations established enduring hierarchies that privileged mixed-race and Portuguese-speaking identities.³ Against this backdrop, all groups in contemporary Angola are listed as racialized.

- **Bakongos** constitute approximately 13% of the national population.⁴ They speak the Kikongo language, although most also speak Portuguese.⁵ The overwhelming

¹ Birmingham, 2016.

² Heywood, 2000.

³ Manuel, 2022.

⁴ Birnir et al., 2018.

⁵ Eberhard et al., 2025.

majority of the group adheres to Christianity, mostly Protestant and Roman Catholic denominations, a consequence of religious conversion from traditional animist beliefs during the colonial period.⁶ The Bakongos are spatially concentrated in the exclave of Cabinda.⁷ From 1990, the Bakongos have pursued greater autonomy and independence in Cabinda following the creation of the Movimento para Auto-Determinação de Bakongo (MAKO). Efforts halted in 2012 when the Bakongo groups dissolved and began fighting under the Cabindan rebel group the Front for the Liberation of the Cabindan Enclave (FLEC).⁸

- **Cabindans** comprise a small group of approximately 2% of the national population.⁹ They speak Yombe and the vast majority follow Christianity, specifically Roman Catholicism and Protestantism, although about one-tenth continue to follow animist religions.¹⁰ They are spatially concentrated in the exclave of Cabinda.¹¹ Since 1961, the Cabindans have pursued greater autonomy and independence in Cabinda, initially through the formation of three nationalist groups, which eventually merged to form the FLEC.¹²
- **Europeans** comprise approximately 1% of the total population.¹³ They are descendants of European colonizers who first arrived in the late 15th century. Predominantly of Portuguese origin, they speak Portuguese, which remains the official language of Angola.¹⁴ Europeans follow Christianity, specifically the Roman Catholic denomination.¹⁵
- **Lundas-Chokwes** are a nested group that comprises approximately 9% of the population, including **Lundas** and **Chokwes**.¹⁶ About three-quarters speak Lunda, and the remainder speak Chokwe.¹⁷ Almost all Lundas-Chokwes follow

⁶ Nunes Pereira, 2013; Embaixada da República de Angola, 2014.

⁷ Birnir et al., 2018.

⁸ Sambanis et al., 2017, 7.

⁹ Birnir et al., 2018.

¹⁰ Bormann et al., 2021; Zinga, 2017; Neves, 2007.

¹¹ Birnir et al., 2018.

¹² Sambanis et al., 2017, 8.

¹³ Birnir et al., 2018; Castelo, 2007.

¹⁴ Constitution of Angola, 2010.

¹⁵ Joshua Project, 2025.

¹⁶ Birnir et al., 2018.

¹⁷ Bormann et al., 2021.

Christianity, with about one-tenth continuing to follow animist religions.¹⁸ They are spatially concentrated in the western provinces of Angola, specifically Lunda Norte, Lunda Sol and Moxico.¹⁹

- **Mestiços** constitute approximately 2% of the population.²⁰ They speak Portuguese, and²¹ the vast majority are Christian, specifically Roman Catholic.²² During the colonial period, the Mestiços were socially and politically differentiated, constituting a local elite.²³ The word Mestiço refers to people of European-Portuguese and African-Angolan descent.²⁴
- **Ngamuelas** constitute approximately 8% of the population.²⁵ They speak the Nyemba language.²⁶ The vast majority follow Christianity: two-thirds of Christian Ngamuelas adhere to Roman Catholicism and the rest to Protestantism. A small minority continues to follow animist religions.²⁷ The Ngamuelas are spatially concentrated in the south-central Cuchi River area, as well as in southeastern Angola, particularly in eastern Huíla, northern Cunene, and northwestern Cuando Cubango provinces, with smaller communities also found in Bié and Huambo.²⁸
- **Nkumbis** constitute approximately 10% of the population.²⁹ They speak Nkumbi.³⁰ Approximately two-thirds follow Christianity; the vast majority are Roman Catholic. The remaining third continues to follow animist religions.³¹ Nkumbis are mostly located in the south-west, west bank, Cunene River, Cunene, and Huíla provinces.³²

¹⁸ Bormann et al., 2021; Joshua Project, 2025.

¹⁹ Bormann et al., 2021; Joshua Project, 2025.

²⁰ Birnir et al., 2018, YEAR; Castelo, 2007.

²¹ EPR Atlas, 2015.

²² Bormann et al., 2021.

²³ Marzano, 2020.

²⁴ Marzano, 2020.

²⁵ Birnir et al., 2018,

²⁶ Eberhard et al., 2025.

²⁷ Joshua Project, 2025.

²⁸ Joshua Project, 2025.

²⁹ Birnir et al., 2018.

³⁰ Eberhard et al., 2025.

³¹ Joshua Project, 2025.

³² Joshua Project, 2025.

- **Nyanekas** constitute approximately 1% of the population.³³ They speak Nyaneka.³⁴ The vast majority follow Christianity: two thirds are Roman Catholic, one-tenth are Protestant, and the remainder follow other Christian-based faiths. Approximately one-tenth of Nyanekas continue to follow animist religions.³⁵ The group is primarily spatially concentrated in the southwest, on the Atlantic Coast, in the Huíla, Namibe, Cunene, and Benguela provinces.³⁶
- **Ovimbundus** are a large, nested group that constitute approximately 38% of the population.³⁷ They consist of the **Ovimbundus** and the **Ovambos**. Approximately 90% of this group speak Umbundu, and the remainder speak Oshiwambo. They are almost entirely Christian.³⁸ They are predominantly spatially concentrated in the central West, mainly in Huambo, Cuanza Sul, Benguela, Bié, Huíla, Namibe, and Bengo provinces.³⁹
- **Kimbundus** constitute approximately 17% of the population.⁴⁰ They speak Kimbundu, and the majority also speaks Portuguese.⁴¹ Almost all are Christian, with about one-tenth continuing to follow animist religions.⁴² They reside in a compact area in Huambo, Cuanza Sul, Bié, Huíla, Namibe, and Bengo provinces.⁴³
- **Other Pastoralist Groups** are a nested group that constitute approximately 0.1% of the population.⁴⁴ They comprise the **Himba** (also known as Hereros) and groups that can be associated with the San people, such as the **Geiriku** and the **Vasekela**. These groups, who maintain semi-nomadic pastoralist livelihoods centered on cattle herding and small-scale farming, are widely considered Indigenous peoples within the sub-Saharan African context. They speak Himba, Geiriku, and

³³ Birnir et al., 2018.

³⁴ Eberhard et al., 2025.

³⁵ Joshua Project, 2025.

³⁶ Joshua Project, 2025.

³⁷ Birnir et al., 2018.

³⁸ Joshua Project, 2025.

³⁹ Joshua Project, 2025.

⁴⁰ Birnir et al., 2018.

⁴¹ Bormann et al, 2021; Joshua Project, 2025.

⁴² Joshua Project, 2025.

⁴³ Joshua Project, 2025.

⁴⁴ IWGIA, 2025.

Northwestern !Kung, as well as Chokwe.⁴⁵ Almost all Himba follow Christianity.⁴⁶ About half of the Geiriku follow Christianity, with the remainder following animist religions.⁴⁷ The majority of the Vasekela follow animist religions, with about one-fifth following Christianity.⁴⁸ The Himba are concentrated in the Cunene and Namibe provinces, in the municipalities of Cahama, Curoca, and Tombua.⁴⁹

State Profile

Official Language

Angola did not designate an official language until the adoption of the 2010 Constitution, in which Article 19(1) formally recognizes Portuguese as the country's official language.⁵⁰

Official Religion

Both constitutions in the study period explicitly state that Angola is a secular state: in Title 1, Article 7 of the 1975 Constitution and Article 10(1) of the 2010 Constitution.⁵¹

Education Policies

In the decades following independence in 1975, Angola's education system was severely disrupted by prolonged civil conflict. As a result, access to schooling remained limited and uneven, particularly outside urban areas.⁵² The 2001 Basic Law on Education (13/01) established compulsory primary education (*ensino de base*) for six years, from ages 6–11, up from four years previously.⁵³ Secondary education (*ensino medio*) is non-compulsory and lasts for two cycles of three years, from ages 11 to 17.⁵⁴ Recent years have seen growth in private and foreign-backed vocational and higher education initiatives.⁵⁵ **Private schools** were not permitted in the country until 1990.⁵⁶

⁴⁵ Glottolog, 2025; Eberhard et al., 2025.

⁴⁶ Joshua Project, 2025.

⁴⁷ Joshua Project, 2025.

⁴⁸ Joshua Project, 2025.

⁴⁹ Joshua Project, 2025.

⁵⁰ Constitution of Angola, 2010.

⁵¹ Constitution of Angola, 1975; Constitution of Angola, 2010.

⁵² Scholaro, 2025.

⁵³ Lei n.º 13/01, 2001; UNESCO, 2019.

⁵⁴ UNESCO, 2019.

⁵⁵ Scholaro, 2025.

⁵⁶ Bailey, 2025.

Language Education Policies

Language education policy in Angola is anchored in the use of **Portuguese** as the language of instruction across public and private schools. This has been consistently upheld through legislation since independence in 1975. The 2001 Basic Law on Education (Article 9) and its subsequent revisions affirm that teaching in schools is to be conducted in Portuguese.⁵⁷ However, in Article 16 (1) of the 2016 Angola Basic Law on Education, the law allows for the use of “Angolan languages” as languages of instruction in the education system.⁵⁸ This was reaffirmed by the 2020 Angola Basic Law on Education.⁵⁹ A fixed list of national languages has been authorized for use both as languages of instruction and as subjects taught in schools. This list includes **Kikongo, Kimbundu, Umbundu, Chokwe, Mbunda, Nyemba, Nyaneka, and Yombe**.⁶⁰ These languages may be offered as optional or mandatory language classes in both primary and secondary public schools, depending on the locality. This policy applies equally across public and private schools.

Several other languages are not officially recognized as national languages and are therefore excluded from the education system. These include **Nkumbi, Himba, Lunda, Oshiwambo, Kuvale, Geiriku, and Northwestern !Kung**.⁶¹ These languages are neither used as mediums of instruction nor taught as language classes, due to their lack of formal recognition.⁶²

Religious Education Policies

In public schools, religious instruction is not generally provided. This option may be available only as an optional subject with very limited provision in some regions, as it is not mandatory or required for any group.⁶³ Private education was banned from 1975 to 1990,⁶⁴ but beginning in 1990, private schools were allowed to operate and provide religious instruction, although only for recognized religious organizations. For example, the 2019 Law of Religious Freedom and Belief states that religious education is optional,

⁵⁷ Lei n.º 13/01, 2001; Lei n.º 17/16, 2016.

⁵⁸ Lei n.º 17/16, 2016.

⁵⁹ Lei n.º 32/20, 2020.

⁶⁰ Lei n.º 17/16, 2016.

⁶¹ Lei n.º 32/20, 2020.

⁶² Bernardo and Severo, 2018; Ndonbele, 2017; Chicumba, 2013.

⁶³ ARDA, 1998.

⁶⁴ Guebe, 2016.

and that it is up to legally recognized religious organizations to create curricula and educational materials and train teachers (Chapter 2, Section 1, Article 15).⁶⁵

Religious organizations must obtain legal recognition in order to teach religion in private schools; without it, they are barred from providing religious instruction. For example, through 2020, Islamic organizations lacked such recognition.⁶⁶

Bans and Restrictions

Chapter 1, Article 12 of the Press Law 2006 stipulates media companies must provide information in the nationally recognized languages.⁶⁷ Section 3 Article 12 of the 2017 Press Law confirms these details,⁶⁸ in effect barring **Nkumbi, Himba, Lunda, Oshiwambo, Kuvale, Geiriku, and Northwestern !Kung** from usage in the media. Additionally, in March 2020, the Angolan government decreed the closure of some Brazilian evangelical churches.⁶⁹

Demographic Engineering and Violence

State-Based Violence

In 1977, between 30,000 and 90,000 supporters of the People's Movement for the Liberation of Angola (MPLA) were killed, a group primarily comprised of **Kimbundus**.⁷⁰

In 1992, the government carried out widespread killings of people who supported the opposition party, the National Union for the Total Independence of Angola (UNITA), a group primarily made up of **Ovimbundu** and **Bakongo** people. The event is known as the All Saints Massacre.⁷¹ The violence began in Luanda before spreading across the country; estimates suggest between 10,000 and 50,000 were killed.⁷²

State forces in **Cabinda** committed widespread abuses in the mid-2000s: after a major troop surge into the province, Angolan security units and provincial police were repeatedly implicated in unlawful detentions, torture, rape, summary/extrajudicial

⁶⁵ Law on Freedom of Religion and Belief, 2019.

⁶⁶ U.S. Department of State, 2020.

⁶⁷ Law no. 7/06 of May 15, 2006, on the Press, 2006; Miguel, 2015.

⁶⁸ Lei n.º 1/17, 2017; Miguel, 2015.

⁶⁹ U.S. Department of State, 2020.

⁷⁰ Correia, 2022; BBC News, 2020.

⁷¹ Sampaio, 2012.

⁷² Sampaio, 2012.

killings and the forced displacement of civilians during 2004–2005. International reporting and country-level human-rights reviews corroborate these findings and attribute many of the violations to government forces participating in counter-insurgency operations in Cabinda.⁷³

Constitutions and Laws

The 1975 Constitution of Angola does not make explicit mention of any particular group; however, Title 2 Article 18 states “All citizens are equal before the law and enjoy the same rights [...] regardless of skin color, race, ethnicity, gender, place of birth, religion.”⁷⁴ This constitution did not recognize an official language, but it did explicitly declare the secularity of the state. Title 1 Article 7 states “The Popular Republic of Angola is a secular state” and that “all religions will be respected”.⁷⁵

Its successor, the 2010 Constitution of Angola, also includes no explicit mention of any particular group, but it does expand the rights of its citizens: “All are equal before the Constitution and the law” and “no one can be discriminated against [...] because of their origins, sex, race, ethnicity, skin color, disability, language, place of birth, religion” (Article 23. 1).⁷⁶ Article 19(1) recognizes Portuguese as the official language of the state. This constitution reaffirms freedom of religion and religious expression in Article 10, and the secularity of the state in Article 10.⁷⁷

Citizenship Laws

At the time of independence in 1975, Angola adopted a *jus soli* regime, with the 1975 Nationality Act granting Angolan citizenship to all individuals born on Angolan soil, regardless of parentage.⁷⁸ However, with the introduction of the 1984 Nationality Act, restrictions were introduced from 1985–1986; specifically, those born to foreign parents in Angola could acquire Angolan nationality only if (i) the child renounced whatever other nationality they might have, and (ii) they actually resided in Angola (Article 9).⁷⁹

⁷³ Human Rights Watch, 2005; IRIN/The New Humanitarian, 2005.

⁷⁴ Constitution of Angola, 1975.

⁷⁵ Constitution of Angola, 1975.

⁷⁶ Jeronimo, 2019, 5; Constitution of Angola, 2010.

⁷⁷ Constitution of Angola, 2010.

⁷⁸ Jeronimo, 2019, 7; Lei da Nacionalidade, 1975.

⁷⁹ Jeronimo, 2019, 8–9; Lei n.º 2/84, 1984.

The regulation of the Nationality Act in 1986 further clarified that children born in Angola to foreign parents could acquire Angolan citizenship only if they did not acquire their parents' nationality (Article 1). This effectively excluded dual nationals, marking a shift away from automatic birthright citizenship and toward a more restrictive, conditional framework from 1987 to 1992.⁸⁰

This ban on dual citizenship was lifted by the 1991 Nationality Act, and citizenship by birth was limited exclusively to children with at least one Angolan parent (Article 9). This formally ended any *jus soli* provision except in rare cases involving statelessness (Article 14).⁸¹ No domestic group was formally excluded from accessing citizenship at any point, and no foreign group was afforded a simplified process of naturalization.⁸²

National Anthem(s)

Angola's national anthem, "Angola Avante!" [Forward Angola!], was adopted in 1975 after achieving independence from Portugal.⁸³ The anthem reflects the revolutionary spirit of the time and is rich with symbolism tied to Angola's struggle for liberation, collective identity, and socialist values. The lyrics pay homage to Angola's ancestors and martyrs, most notably referencing "the heroes of the Fourth of February," the date commemorating the start of the armed struggle against colonial rule. These heroes are described as "your sons who died for our Independence," emphasizing themes of martyrdom and heroic sacrifice. The anthem is also grounded in a political ideology; lines such as "by our work we build the New Man" and "Revolution through the power of the People" highlight a sort of revolutionary collectivism in post-independence Angola. The anthem includes clear military references, calling on "Angolan fighters" to march and to "fight proudly for Peace," merging the concepts of militarized struggle and peace-building. Lastly, the anthem uses broad language of nationhood, invoking unity and sovereignty through phrases like "A United Country," "Freedom," and "One People, one Nation!"⁸⁴

⁸⁰ Jeronimo, 2019, 10; Decree no. 1/86, 1986.

⁸¹ Lei n.º 12/91, 1991.

⁸² Jeronimo, 2019.

⁸³ Nationalanthems.info, n.d.

⁸⁴ Nationalanthem.info, n.d.

References

- The Association of Religion Data Archives (ARDA). Pennsylvania State University, Dept. of Sociology, 1998.
- Bailey, Ellen. *Angola: Geography and Cartography*. EBSCO, 2025.
<https://www.ebsco.com/research-starters/geography-and-cartography/angola>
- BBC News. "The Orphans of Angola's Secret Massacre Seek the Truth." *BBC News*, September 7, 2020. <https://www.bbc.com/news/world-africa-54025264>
- Bernardo e Severo. "Políticas linguísticas em Angola: Sobre as políticas educativas in(ex)cludentes." *Revista da Abralin* 17, no. 2 (2018).
- Birmingham, David. *A Short History of Modern Angola*. Oxford University Press, 2016.
- Birnir, Jóhanna K., Jonathan Wilkenfeld, James D. Fearon, David D. Laitin, Ted Robert Gurr, Dawn Brancati, Stephen M. Saideman, Amy Pate, and Agatha S. Hultquist. "Socially Relevant Ethnic Groups, Ethnic Structure, and AMAR." *Journal of Peace Research* 52, no. 1 (2015): 110–15. <http://www.jstor.org/stable/24557522>
- Bormann, Nils-Christian, Lars-Erik Cederman, and Manuel Vogt. "Language, Religion, and Ethnic Civil War." *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 61, no. 4 (2017): 744–71.
- Castelo, Claudia. *Passagens para África: O Povoamento de Angola e Moçambique com Naturais da Metrópole*. Porto: Edições Afrontamento, 2007.
- Chicumba, Mateus Segunda. "A educação bilingue em Angola e o lugar das línguas nacionais." Paper presented at IV Colóquio Internacional de Doutorandos/as do CES, December 6–7, 2013.
https://cabodostrabalhos.ces.uc.pt/n10/documentos/11.1.2_Mateus_Segunda_Chicumba.pdf
- Constitution of Angola, 1975*. *Diário da República*, November 10, 1975.
<https://www.cne.ao/storage/legislations/LEI-CONSTITUCIONAL-de-1975.pdf>
- Constitution of the Republic of Angola (2010)*. Constitute Project. Accessed June 19, 2025. https://www.constituteproject.org/constitution/Angola_2010
- Correia, Pedro. "Maior massacre em Angola foi há 45 anos." *Delito de Opinião – SAPO Blogs*, June 2022. <https://delitodeopinioao.blogs.sapo.pt/maior-massacre-em-angola-foi-ha-45-anos-14123745>

-
- Decreto n.º 1/86, de 11 de Janeiro. Regulamento da Lei da Nacionalidade. Accessed March 5, 2019. http://citizenshiprightsafrika.org/wp-content/uploads/2017/11/Angola_regulamento-da-lei-da-nacionalidade1986.pdf
- Eberhard, David M., Gary F. Simons, and Charles D. Fennig, eds. *Ethnologue: Languages of the World*. 28th ed. Dallas: SIL International, 2025. <https://www.ethnologue.com/ethnblog/hint-things-come/>
- Embaixada da República de Angola. "Religião." 2014. <https://www.embangola.at/dados.php?ref=religiao>
- Encyclopaedia Britannica. "Angola in the 21st Century." Last modified 2024. <https://www.britannica.com/place/Angola/Angola-in-the-21st-century>
- EPR Atlas. "Angola." ETH Zurich, 2015. <https://growup.ethz.ch/atlas/pdf/Angola.pdf>
- Glottolog. "Languages of Angola." Max Planck Institute for Evolutionary Anthropology, 2025. <https://glottolog.org/glottolog/language.map.html?country=AO#5/-12.975/17.623>
- Guebe, Antonio. "A Influência da Educação Formal na Educação Tradicional em Angola: O Caso dos Vahanya." PhD diss., ISCTE-Instituto Universitario de Lisboa, 2016.
- Hammarström, Harald, Robert Forkel, Martin Haspelmath, and Sebastian Bank. *Glottolog 5.2*. Leipzig: Max Planck Institute for Evolutionary Anthropology, 2025. <https://doi.org/10.5281/zenodo.15525265>.
- Heywood, Linda M. *Contested Power in Angola, 1840s to the Present*. Rochester: University of Rochester Press, 2000.
- Human Rights Watch. *Coming Home: Return and Reintegration in Angola*. March 16, 2005. <https://www.hrw.org/report/2005/03/16/coming-home/return-and-reintegration-angola>
- IRIN / The New Humanitarian. "Fighting flares up again," July 6, 2005. <https://www.thenewhumanitarian.org/news/2005/07/06/fighting-flares-again>
- IWGIA (International Work Group for Indigenous Affairs). *Indigenous Peoples in Angola*. 2025. <https://iwgia.org/en/angola>
- Joshua Project. "Angola." Joshua Project, 2025. <https://joshuaproject.net/countries/AO>

Law no. 7/06 of May 15, 2006, on the Press. WIPO Lex. Accessed June 18, 2025.

<https://www.wipo.int/wipolex/en/legislation/details/5729>

Law on Freedom of Religion and Belief, Conscience and Worship. *Diário da República*, no. 64, 1st Series, May 14, 2019. <https://www.cne.ao/storage/legislations/CNE-Legislação-3627287728a6f4.pdf>

Lei da Nacionalidade, 1975. Accessed March 5, 2019.

<http://citizenshiprightsafrika.org/wp-content/uploads/2016/04/Angola-Lei-da-nacionalidade-1975.pdf>

Lei de Revisão Constitucional da República Popular de Angola, Lei n.º 12/91, de 6 de maio. Accessed March 7, 2019.

<http://www2.senado.leg.br/bdsf/bitstream/handle/id/176034/000472167.pdf?sequence=3>

Lei n.º 1/17 de 23 de Janeiro. Lei de Imprensa. Luanda: Assembleia Nacional, 2017.

<https://www.cne.ao/storage/legislations/CNE-Legislação-3627287728a6f4.pdf>

Lei n.º 13/01 de 31 de Dezembro. Lei de Bases do Sistema de Educação de Angola. Luanda: Assembleia Nacional, 2001.

https://www.unicef.org/angola/sites/unicef.org.angola/files/2018-06/Lei%2013_01_Lei%20de%20Bases%20do%20Sistema%20de%20Educacao%20de%20Angola%202001.pdf

Lei n.º 17/16 de 7 de Outubro. Lei de Base do Sistema de Educação.

<https://angolex.com/paginas/leis/lei-de-base-do-sistema-de-educacao.html#a19>

Lei n.º 2/84 de 7 de Fevereiro. Lei da Nacionalidade. Accessed March 5, 2019.

http://citizenshiprightsafrika.org/wp-content/uploads/2016/05/Angola-Lei-da-nacionalidade-No2_1984.pdf

Manuel, Nicolau Nkiawete. "Language ideology, representation and nationalism: the discursive construction of identity in postcolonial Angola." *Journal of the British Academy* 10, no. 6 (2022): 31–58.

Marzano, Andrea. "Angola: Apontamentos para uma História Social da Cultura." *Africana Studia* 1, no. 34 (2020).

Miguel, Nilsa Karina Gaspar. "A Regulação da Imprensa em Angola." Master's thesis, Universidade NOVA de Lisboa, 2015.

Nationalanthems.info. “Angola.” <https://nationalanthems.info/ao.htm>.

Ndonbele. “Reflexão sobre as línguas nacionais no sistema de educação de Angola.” *Revista Internacional em Língua Portuguesa* 31 (2017): 71–89.

Neves, Tony. “Angola, a paz e os Direitos Humanos nas mensagens da Igreja Católica (1989–1994).” *Res-Publica: Revista Lusófona de Ciência Política e Relações Internacionais* (2007).

Pereira, Luena Nunes. “Religião e Parentesco entre os Bakongo de Luanda.” *Afro-Ásia* (2013): 11–41.

Sambanis, Nicholas, Micha Germann, and Andreas Schädel. “SDM: A New Data Set on Self-Determination Movements with an Application to the Reputational Theory of Conflict.” *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 62, no. 3 (2018): 656–86.

Sampaio, Madalena. “Massacre de Outubro em Angola completa 20 anos.” *DW – Deutsche Welle (África em Português)*, October 29, 2012. <https://www.dw.com/pt-002/massacre-de-outubro-em-angola-completa-20-anos/a-16341279>.

U.S. Department of State. *2020 Report on International Religious Freedom: Angola*. Office of International Religious Freedom, 2021. <https://www.state.gov/wp-content/uploads/2021/05/240282-ANGOLA-2020-INTERNATIONAL-RELIGIOUS-FREEDOM-REPORT.pdf>

UNESCO. *Universal Periodic Review (34th Session, October–November 2019): Contribution of UNESCO – Angola (Right to Education)*. United Nations Educational, Scientific and Cultural Organization, 2019. https://www.ohchr.org/sites/default/files/lib-docs/HRBodies/UPR/Documents/Session34/AO/UNESCO_UPR34_AGO_E_Main.pdf.

Vogt, Manuel, Nils-Christian Bormann, Seraina Rüegger, Lars-Erik Cederman, Philipp Hunziker, and Luc Girardin. “Integrating Data on Ethnicity, Geography, and Conflict: The Ethnic Power Relations Data Set Family.” *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 59, no. 7 (2015): 1327–42. <http://www.jstor.org/stable/24546342>.

Zinga, Constantino Bulali. “Morte e Imortalidade na Cultura Tradicional de Cabinda: Sua Relação com o Cristianismo.” Master’s thesis, Universidade Católica Portuguesa, 2017.